



Extrinsic Geometric Flows

Research Notes



Author: Minixao Wu
The Ohio State University

March 25, 2026



Introduction



Lecture notes from the YEAR undergraduate course TITLE, given by professor PROFESSOR at the FACULTY at LOCATION in the academic year ACADEMIC YEAR. This course covers COVERS. Credit for the material in these notes is due to professor PROFESSOR, while the structure is loosely taken from the LOCATION. The credit for the typesetting is my own.

Minxiao Wu
2023/05/20 15:59:16

Contents

1	Heat Equation	1
1.1	Gradient Flow	1
2	Hypersurfaces in Euclidean Space	3
2.1	Mean Curvature	3
2.2	The Area and Volume Functional	9
2.2.1	Basic Concepts	10
2.2.2	First variation of Area and Volume	12
3	Mean Curvature Flow	13
3.1	Minimal Surface Problem	15
3.2	Isoperimetric Problem	17
3.3	Self-similar Solutions	17
4	Valuable Research Directions	18
4.1	Generalizing Isoperimetric Inequality	18
4.2	Review the Proof of the Multiplicity-One Conjecture and Try to Prove The Smale Conjecture	18
	Reference	19
A	Appendix of code and algorithm	i
A.1	code blocks	i
A.2	Algorithm	i

1. Heat Equation

The heat equation originated from Joseph Fourier's research on the theory of heat in 1807. He concluded that the heat change and heat transfer (heat flux $\mathbf{q}$) of a closed system must satisfy the following two laws:

- i. *The heat flux is proportional to the negative temperature gradient.*

$$\mathbf{q} = -\nabla u$$

- ii. *The heat energy $Q(\Omega, t)$ of a Euclidean domain $\Omega \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ at the time t can only be gained or lost via flux through its boundary.*

$$Q(\Omega, t_1) - Q(\Omega, t_2) = - \int_{t_1}^{t_2} \int_{\partial\Omega} \langle \mathbf{q}, \mathbf{n} \rangle \, dA dt$$

where $u = u(\mathbf{x}, t)$ is the temperature at the point $\mathbf{x} \in \Omega$. By these two laws we can get a partial differential equation as below, which is called the heat equation

$$\partial_t u - \Delta u = 0 \tag{1.1}$$

where $\Delta u = \operatorname{div}(\nabla u)$.

1.1 Gradient Flow

We say that a closed system reaches thermal equilibrium when there is no longer any change in heat, which corresponds to $\partial_t u = 0$, and that implies that

$$-\Delta u = 0$$

The solution of this equation is called the harmonic function. Now we define the Dirichlet Energy of the temperature function $u(\mathbf{x}, t)$ as $E(u) = (1/2) \int_{\Omega} |\nabla u|^2 d\mu$ it is a potential energy function. Then its stationary point is exactly the temperature function that satisfies thermal equilibrium conditions. Indeed, if $U \in C^\infty[\Omega \times (-\epsilon, \epsilon)]$ is a smooth variation of u with u outside a compact set, then, setting $\varphi(\mathbf{x}) = \partial_t|_{t=0} U$ we find that

$$\left. \frac{dE(U)}{dt} \right|_{t=0} = \int_{\Omega} \nabla \varphi \cdot \nabla u \, d\mu = - \int_{\Omega} \varphi \Delta u \, d\mu$$

This calculation also shows that the heat equation is a **Gradient Flow** of the Dirichlet Energy: As a system spontaneously evolves towards an equilibrium state, its energy function $E(u)$ will inevitably gradually minimize along the gradient direction, and the final point of this process is the equilibrium point, or the stationary point of $E(u)$.

Therefore, gradient flow is actually a trend, an evolutionary process of a system, in which the system's energy function $E(u)$ gradually decreases with time along the negative gradient direction. This flow can usually be described by a partial differential equation, and each solution is a characterization of a certain state of the system satisfying this evolutionary trend under different initial conditions (a function of time t). This leads to our rigorous definition of gradient flow.

Definition 1.1 (Gradient Flow). *Gradient flow is an evolutionary trend of a dynamic system. In this process, the system's energy function $E \in C^\infty$ gradually decreases with time along the negative gradient direction, which is characterized by the initial value problem of the following partial differential equation.*

$$\begin{cases} u'_t = -\nabla E(u), & t > 0 \\ u(\mathbf{x}, 0) = u_0(\mathbf{x}) \end{cases} \quad (1.2)$$

It's solution is called a gradient flow curve.

From this, we can extend the concept of geometric flow, which is also a mode of evolution that can be described by some partial differential equations. However, this mode of evolution operates on geometric objects (such as curves, surfaces, and manifolds) rather than dynamic systems. The energy function driving this evolution is certain geometric quantities (such as area, arc length of curves, and curvature). Under this trend, these geometric bodies evolve (deform) in the direction that minimizes these geometric quantities. Everything we will discuss thereafter revolves around this concept.

Geometric flows are further divided into external curvature flows and internal curvature flows. External curvature flows are characterized by a submanifold evolving in an ambient space, with velocity determined by its extrinsic curvature. This is the focus of our discussion. Internal curvature flows, on the other hand, are mathematical evolutions of a Riemannian metric (the shape of a manifold) that depend only on the internal geometry, not on how it is embedded in higher-dimensional space.

2. Hypersurfaces in Euclidean Space

Definition 2.1 (Hypersurface). Let M^n be an n -dimensional smooth manifold, N be an $(n+1)$ dimensional smooth manifold, and let

$$X : M^n \rightarrow N \quad (2.1)$$

be a smooth immersion (that is, a smooth map whose differential $dX : TM^n \rightarrow TN$ is everywhere injective). Then the pair (M^n, X) is defined as a hypersurface in N .

We say that a map X between two manifolds M^n and N is proper if its inverse X^{-1} satisfies that any compact subset $K \subset N$ its preimage $X^{-1}(K)$ is also a compact set in M^n .

2.1 Mean Curvature

Given a vector $\mathbf{u} \in \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, the **directional derivative** in the direction $\mathbf{u}$ is denoted by $D_{\mathbf{u}}$. It is an operator such tht it acts on a smooth function $f : \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ by

$$D_{\mathbf{u}} : f \mapsto u^i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}$$

and on a smooth vector field $V : \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ by

$$D_{\mathbf{u}} : V \rightarrow u^i \frac{\partial V^j}{\partial x^i} \cdot \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}$$

Since Euclidean space $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is flat, the tangent space at any point possesses a natural isomorphism with the space itself (e.g, translation) $\sigma : T\mathbb{R}^{n+1} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$; the so-called Euclidean covariant derivative is defined as the result of any directional derivative under the action of this isomorphism, which we denote by $\widetilde{D}_{\mathbf{u}} = \sigma \circ D_{\mathbf{u}}$. If we also denote that $\tilde{\mathbf{u}} = \sigma(\mathbf{u})$ then it's easy to verify that for any smooth vector field $V : \mathbb{R}^{n+1} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ there are

$$\widetilde{D}_{\mathbf{u}}(V) = D_{\tilde{\mathbf{u}}}(\tilde{V})$$

Definition 2.2 (Connection). For a proper smooth immersion $X : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ such that $X(M) = \mathcal{M}$ we define a connection on the smooth manifold M be a real bilinear map $\nabla : TM \times \Gamma(TM) \rightarrow TM$ which:

- respects the bundle structure, in the sense that $\pi(\nabla_{\mathbf{u}}V) = \pi(\mathbf{u})$ for any $\mathbf{u} \in TM$ and $\pi : TM \rightarrow M$ is the projection of the tangent bundle over M ,

- is smooth, in the sense that $\nabla_U V \in \Gamma(TM)$ for each pair $U, V \in \Gamma(TM)$ where

$$\nabla_U V(p) = \nabla_{U_p} V = \nabla(U_p, V)$$

- satisfies the Leibniz rule.

where $\Gamma(TM)$ denotes all the smooth vector fields on TM . For a fixed $\mathbf{u} \in TM$, the induced derivation $\nabla_{\mathbf{u}} : \Gamma(TM) \rightarrow TM$ is called the covariant derivative in the direction $\mathbf{u}$.

Obviously, the direction derivative is a Euclidean connection. Then we define the Euclidean pulback connection D on the pulback bundle $X^*T\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ (such that its fiber on $p \in M$ is $T_{X(p)}\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$) as

$$D_{\mathbf{u}}(X^*V) = D_{dX(\mathbf{u})}(V)$$

for any tangent vector $\mathbf{u} \in TM$ and any vector field $V \in \Gamma(T\mathbb{R}^{n+1})$.

Observe that in the embedded case the restriction bundle $T\mathbb{R}^{n+1}|_{\mathcal{M}}$ splits as an orthogonal sum $TM \oplus^\perp NM$, where NM is the normal bundle. Then for any $\mathbf{u} \in T\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ we define the normal and tangential projections as

$$\mathbf{u}^\perp = \mathbf{u} - \langle \mathbf{u}, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle \boldsymbol{\nu}, \quad \mathbf{u}^\top = \langle \mathbf{u}, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle \boldsymbol{\nu}$$

where $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ is either of the two unit vectors in $N_p\mathcal{M}$ and $p = \pi(u)$. Then pulling it back to M we have $X^*T\mathbb{R}^{n+1} \cong TM \oplus^\perp NM$.

Lemma 2.1. *If $\mathcal{M}^n \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is an embedded hypersurface, then the tangential projection of the Euclidean connection D*

$$\nabla_{\mathbf{u}} V = (D_{\mathbf{u}} V)^\top \tag{2.2}$$

defines a connection $\nabla : TM^n \times \Gamma(TM^n) \rightarrow TM^n$ on $\mathcal{M}^n$. It is metric compatible and symmetric.

Thus, by pulling it back to M we can get a connection $\nabla : TM^n \times \Gamma(TM^n) \rightarrow TM^n$ via

$$dX(\nabla_{\mathbf{u}} V) = (D_{\mathbf{u}}[dX(V)])^\top \tag{2.3}$$

where D is the Euclidean pulback connection on $X^*T\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$. It can be verify that the pulback connection ∇ is the Levi-Civita connection of the Riemannian metric g .

On a local coordinate $\{x^i\}$ we introduce the Christoffel symbols $\Gamma_{ij}^k : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ to depict the connection, which is defined by

$$\Gamma_{ij}^k \partial_k = \nabla_i \partial_j \tag{2.4}$$

Since by (2.3) we have that $dX(\nabla_i \partial_j) = [D_i(\partial_j X)]^\top$ and also

$$dX(\nabla_i \partial_j) = dX(\Gamma_{ij}^k \partial_k) = \Gamma_{ij}^k \partial_k X$$

then for any $\partial_l X$ we have

$$\langle [D_i(\partial_j X)]^\top, \partial_l X \rangle = \langle D_i(\partial_j X), \partial_l X \rangle = \langle \partial_i \partial_j X, \partial_l X \rangle$$

On the other hand, by the Riemannian metric g we have that $\Gamma_{ij}^k \langle \partial_k, \partial_l \rangle = \Gamma_{ij}^k g_{kl}$. If we let $g^{kl} \cdot g_{kl} = 1$ then we have that

$$\Gamma_{ij}^k = g^{kl} \langle \partial_i \partial_j X, \partial_l X \rangle$$

Now we define the normal part of the Euclidean covariant derivative $(D_u V)^\perp$ along $\mathcal{M}$ as the second fundamental form of $\mathcal{M}$.

Lemma 2.2. *Let $u, v \in T\mathcal{M}$, and let $V \in \Gamma(T\mathcal{M})$ be an extension of v . Then the smooth map $\mathbf{\Pi} : T\mathcal{M} \times T\mathcal{M} \rightarrow N\mathcal{M}$ defined by*

$$\mathbf{\Pi}(u, v) = (D_u V)^\perp \quad (2.5)$$

is well-defined and bilinear. It also happens to be symmetric.

Pulling back to M we obtain the symmetric, bilinear second fundamental form $\mathbf{h} : TM \times TM \rightarrow NM$ of $X : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$

$$\mathbf{h}(u, v) = (D_u V)^\perp \quad (2.6)$$

where $V \in \Gamma(TM)$ is any extension of v .

Choosing a unit normal $\boldsymbol{\nu} \in N_x M = N_p \mathcal{M}$, where $p = X(x)$ we can write

$$\mathbf{h}_x(u, v) = -h_x(u, v) \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = -\Pi_p(u, v) \boldsymbol{\nu} = \mathbf{\Pi}_p(u, v)$$

Now given $u, v \in T_x M$, if we define the derivative of dX as $\nabla^2 X(u, v) = (\nabla_u dX)(v)$ then by the following Leibniz rule

$$\nabla_u [dX(V)] = (\nabla_u dX)(v) + dX(\nabla_u V)$$

we could have that

$$\nabla^2 X = D_u [dX(V)] - dX(\nabla_u V) = [D_u (dX(V))]^\perp$$

It follows that

$$\nabla^2 X = \mathbf{h}$$

or, in components with respect to local bases $\{e_i\}_{i=1}^n$ for $T_x M$ and $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ for $N_x M$,

$$\nabla_i \nabla_j X = -h_{ij} \boldsymbol{\nu}$$

To each symmetric bilinear form corresponds a selfadjoint endomorphism. The **Weingarten map** $L_p : T_p\mathcal{M} \rightarrow T_p\mathcal{M}$ of $\mathcal{M}$ (corresponding to the choice of unit normal $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ at p) is the linear map defined by

$$L_p(\mathbf{u}) = D_{\mathbf{u}}N$$

where $N \in \Gamma(N\mathcal{M})$ of $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ satisfying $|N| \equiv 1$ in a neighborhood of p . It is well-defined because

$$0 = \frac{1}{2}D_{\mathbf{u}}|N|^2 = \langle D_{\mathbf{u}}N, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle$$

and also since for any $v \in T_p\mathcal{M}$ we have that $\langle N, v \rangle = 0$, then by the Leibniz rule we have that

$$0 = \nabla_{\mathbf{u}} \langle N, v \rangle = \langle D_{\mathbf{u}}N, v \rangle + \langle \boldsymbol{\nu}, D_{\mathbf{u}}V \rangle$$

From (2.5) we have that

$$\langle D_{\mathbf{u}}N, v \rangle = -\langle \boldsymbol{\nu}, D_{\mathbf{u}}V \rangle = \mathbf{II}(u, v)$$

Pulling back the map L_p to M^n , we obtain the Weingarten tensor $L_x : T_xM \rightarrow T_xM$ of $X : M^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$,

$$L_x(\mathbf{u}) = D_{\mathbf{u}}N$$

where $N \in \Gamma(NM)$ of some $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ satisfying $|N| \equiv 1$ in a neighborhood of p . Let g be the Riemannian metric on M then we have that

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{II}(u, v) &= (D_{\mathbf{u}}V)^\perp = \langle D_{\mathbf{u}}N, v \rangle \\ &= \langle L_p(\mathbf{u}), v \rangle = g[L_x(\mathbf{u}), v] = \mathbf{h}_x(u, v) \end{aligned}$$

With respect to local coordinates $\{x^i\}_{i=1}^n$ on M^n , let $L_x(\partial_i) = L_i^k \partial_k X$ then we have

$$\mathbf{II}_{ij} := \mathbf{II}(\partial_i, \partial_j) = g\left(L_i^k \partial_k, \partial_j\right) = L_i^k g_{kj}$$

Thus, by $L_i^k = \mathbf{II}_{ij} g^{kj}$ there are

$$D_i N = L_x(\partial_i) = L_i^k \partial_k X = \mathbf{II}_{ij} g^{kj} \partial_k X \quad (2.7)$$

If $\mathcal{M}$ is orientable, then we can choose a global unit normal field $N \in \Gamma\mathcal{M}$ in which case the tensor fields $\mathbf{h} \in \Gamma(T^*\mathcal{M} \otimes T^*\mathcal{M})$, $L \in \Gamma(T^*\mathcal{M} \otimes T\mathcal{M})$, $\mathbf{II} \in \Gamma(T^*\mathcal{M} \otimes T^*\mathcal{M})$, and $L \in \Gamma(T^*\mathcal{M} \otimes T\mathcal{M})$ are all well-defined globally. We can identify such vector field $N : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow N\mathcal{M} \subseteq T\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ by the following **Gaussian map**

$$G : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow S^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$$

via the canonical identification $T_p\mathbb{R}^{n+1} \cong \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ and S^n is an n -dimensional sphere. Then $G(p) = N_p$

and the tangent spaces $T_p\mathcal{M}$, $T_{G(p)}S^n$ coincide under the identification $T_p\mathbb{R}^{n+1} \cong \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$.

$$T_{G(p)}S^n = \{v \in T_{G(p)}\mathbb{R}^{n+1} \mid \langle v, N_{G(p)} \rangle = 0\}$$

We define A_p the **shape operator** of $\mathcal{M}$ as the following derivative of Gaussian map

$$A_p := dG|_p: T_p\mathcal{M} \rightarrow T_{G(p)}S^n$$

Since for any curve $\gamma(t)$ that go through p and have the tangent vector $\mathbf{u}$ at the point p we have that

$$dG_p(\mathbf{u}) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} G(\gamma(t)) \right|_{t=0} = \left. \frac{d}{dt} N_{\gamma(t)} \right|_{t=0} = D_{\mathbf{u}}N = L_p(\mathbf{u})$$

Then there are $A = L$.

Definition 2.3 (Principal Curvature). *The (ordered) eigenvalues*

$$\kappa_1 \leq \kappa_2 \leq \cdots \leq \kappa_n \quad (2.8)$$

*of the Weingarten tensor are called the **principal curvatures** of $X : M \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$. The corresponding unit eigenvectors are called **principal directions**. We refer to an orthonormal basis of principal directions at a point as a **principal basis** and a local or global orthonormal frame field (not necessarily continuous) of principal directions as a **principal frame field**.*

For a Cylindrical surface $x(u, v) = (\cos v, \sin v, u)$ where $u, v \in \mathbb{R}$ we can find its tangent vectors as $X_u = \partial_u x = (0, 0, 1)$ and $X_v = \partial_v x = (-\sin v, \cos v, 0)$. Then the metric tensor can be written as

$$G = [g_{ij}]_{2 \times 2} = \begin{pmatrix} \langle X_u, X_u \rangle & \langle X_u, X_v \rangle \\ \langle X_v, X_u \rangle & \langle X_v, X_v \rangle \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

So its inverse G^{-1} is also an identity matrix. The unit normal vector $\boldsymbol{\nu}$ of this surface can be calculated as

$$\boldsymbol{\nu} = X_u \times X_v = \begin{vmatrix} \mathbf{i} & \mathbf{j} & \mathbf{k} \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -\sin v & \cos v & 0 \end{vmatrix} = (-\cos v, -\sin v, 0)$$

By (2.6) we know that the components of the second fundamental form $\mathbf{h}$ should satisfies that $h_{ij} = \langle \nabla_i X_j, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle$. Then there are

$$\mathbf{h} = \begin{pmatrix} \langle \nabla_u X_u, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle & \langle \nabla_u X_v, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle \\ \langle \nabla_v X_u, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle & \langle \nabla_v X_v, \boldsymbol{\nu} \rangle \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}$$

By (2.7) we can find the matrix of the Weingarten map as $L = -h_{ij}g^{ij} = -h_{ij}$. Thus the principal curvature of $x(u, v)$ is $\kappa_1 = 0$ and $\kappa_2 = 1$.

Definition 2.4 (Mean Curvature). We define the trace of the Weingarten tensor as the **mean curvature** and denote it by H , that is

$$H := \text{tr}(L) = \kappa_1 + \kappa_2 + \cdots \kappa_n = \text{tr}(L) \quad (2.9)$$

The mean curvature measures the local variation of area under small perturbations of the hypersurface. It is equal to the average of the second fundamental form over the tangent sphere and can also be related to the scalar part of the divergence of dX with respect to the induced covariant derivative and metric on $T^*M \otimes X^*TM$. We shall call a hypersurface $X : M^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ **mean convex** if it admits a unit normal field with respect to which its mean curvature is nonnegative.

Now for any vector field or tensor field V we define the divergence of it as the trace of its covariant differential, that is

$$\text{div}V := \text{tr}(u \mapsto \nabla_u V) \quad (2.10)$$

Then we can also have that

$$\text{div}(dX) = \text{tr}[\nabla(dX)] = -g^{ij}h_{ij}\boldsymbol{\nu} = -H \cdot \boldsymbol{\nu} = \mathbf{H}$$

If we define the Laplacian Δf of a smooth function f as $\Delta f = \text{div}(\text{grad } f)$ then it's easy to know that $\mathbf{H} = \text{div}(dX) = \Delta X$ where $\text{grad } f$, the gradient of f is the tangent vector field dual to the differential df of f .

Definition 2.5 (Gaussian Curvature). We define the **Gaussian Curvature** K as the determinant of Weingarten tensor that is

$$K = \det(L) = \kappa_1 \cdot \kappa_2 \cdots \kappa_n = \det(L) \quad (2.11)$$

More generally, the m -th mean Curvature H_m , defined for $1 \leq m \leq n$ is the m -th elementary symmetric polynomial in the principal curvatures:

$$H_m := \sum_{1 \leq i_1 < i_2 < \cdots < i_m \leq n} \kappa_{i_1} \cdots \kappa_{i_m}$$

The **Harmonic mean curvature** H_{-1} is defined by

$$H_{-1} := \frac{1}{\kappa_1^{-1} + \cdots + \kappa_n^{-1}} = \frac{H_n}{H_{n-1}}$$

Example 2.1 (Round Euclidean spheres). Denote by S_r^n the n -sphere of radius r centered at the origin in $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ and let $\mathbf{N}(x) = x/|x|$ denote its unit outward normal vector field. The

second fundamental form and mean curvature of S_r^n are given by

$$\mathbf{II} = \frac{1}{r} \cdot \mathbf{I}_{S_r^n}, \quad H = \frac{n}{r}$$

Indeed for any $V, W \in TS_r^n$, by (2.5) we should have that

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{II}(V, W) &= (D_V W)^\perp = \langle D_V \mathbf{N}, W \rangle \\ &= \left\langle \frac{1}{r} D_V x, W \right\rangle = \frac{1}{r} \langle V, W \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{r} \cdot \mathbf{I}_{S_r^n}(V, W) \end{aligned}$$

The orthogonal basis of the tangent space TS_r^n is $\{e_1, e_2, \dots, e_n\}$ then we know that g_{ij} and g^{ij} are both identify matrix then $L = \mathbf{II}$. Also, we have that

$$\mathbf{II}_{ij} = \mathbf{II}(e_i, e_j) = \frac{1}{r} \langle e_i, e_j \rangle = \frac{1}{r} \cdot \delta_{ij}$$

Thus the mean curvature of S_r^n should be

$$H = \text{tr}(L) = \frac{1}{r} \cdot \delta_{ij} = \frac{n}{r}$$

2.2 The Area and Volume Functional

Let A be a subset of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, let m be a nonnegative integer, and let ω_m denote the volume of the m -dimensional unit Euclidean ball. For a subset $B \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, let $\text{diam}(B)$ denote the diameter of B and $\text{rad}(B) = (1/2) \cdot \text{diam}(B)$. Given $\delta > 0$, define

$$\mathcal{H}_\delta^m(A) = \inf_{\mathcal{B}} \sum_{B_i \in \mathcal{B}} \omega_m \cdot \text{rad}^m(B_i)$$

where the infimum is taken over all countable covers $\mathcal{B} = \{B_i\}$ of A satisfying

$$\max_{B_i \in \mathcal{B}} \text{diam}(B_i) \leq \delta$$

Obviously, $\mathcal{H}_\delta^m(A)$ is nonincreasing of δ .

Definition 2.6 (Hausdorff Measure). For any subset $A \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ we define its m -dimensional outer Hausdorff measure as follows

$$\bar{\mathcal{H}}^m(A) = \sup_{\delta > 0} \mathcal{H}_\delta^m(A) \quad (2.12)$$

Particularly, if the limit $\lim_{\delta \rightarrow 0} \mathcal{H}_\delta^m(A)$ exists then we say A is m -dimensional Hausdorff measurable and define its m -dimensional Hausdorff measure as

$$\mathcal{H}^m(A) = \lim_{\delta \rightarrow 0} \mathcal{H}_\delta^m(A) = \bar{\mathcal{H}}^m(A)$$

2.2.1 Basic Concepts

Definition 2.7 (Area). The area of a compact subset K of an embedded hypersurface $\mathcal{M}^n \hookrightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is defined as the n -dimensional Hausdorff measure on $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ of K . That is

$$\text{Area}(K) := \mathcal{H}^n(K) \quad (2.13)$$

Since it can be proved that the Hausdorff measure $\mathcal{H}^n$ is a regular outer Borel measure of $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$, then any compact set K is Hausdorff measurable and thus such concept is well-defined.

With the concept of Hausdorff measure we can introduce the concept of Riemannian measure of a Riemannian manifold (M^n, g) as follows, which can help us doing some specific calculation.

Definition 2.8 (Riemannian Measure). For a Riemannian manifold (M^n, g) we take a locally finite atlas $\{(U_i, \varphi_i)\}_{i \in \mathcal{I}}$ for M_n and subordinate partition of unity $\{\rho_i\}_{i \in \mathcal{I}}$. Then for any compact subset $K \subseteq M^n$ let χ_K be the indicator function of K and g_{φ_i} is the component matrix of g with respect to the chart φ_i . We define the Riemannian measure of K as

$$\mu(K) = \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \int_{U_i} [(\rho_i \cdot \chi_K) \circ \varphi_i^{-1}] \cdot \sqrt{\det g_{\varphi_i}} \, d\mathcal{H}^n \quad (2.14)$$

Since compact set is always Hausdorff measurable and it can be proved that such value of the integral is invariant under any choice of the atlas and the partition of unity, then such measure is well-defined. Now with the Riemannian measure we could compute the area of a compact hypersurface as follows

Lemma 2.3. Let $X : M^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ be a compact immersed hypersurface then we have

$$\text{Area}(M) = -\frac{1}{n} \int_M \langle X, \mathbf{H} \rangle \, d\mu \quad (2.15)$$

Proof. By the definition of the Laplacian Δ and the divergence operator we know that

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{1}{2}\Delta|X|^2 &= \frac{1}{2}\Delta\langle X, X \rangle \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \cdot \operatorname{div}(\langle dX, X \rangle + \langle X, dX \rangle) = \operatorname{div}\langle dX, X \rangle\end{aligned}$$

From (2.10) we know that the divergence should satisfy the Leibniz rule, that is

$$\operatorname{div}\langle dX, X \rangle = \operatorname{tr}\langle dX, dX \rangle + \langle \operatorname{div}(dX), X \rangle = |dX|^2 + \langle \operatorname{div}(dX), X \rangle$$

Since it's well known that $\operatorname{div}(dX) = \mathbf{H}$ and

$$|dX|^2 = g^{ij}\langle dX(\partial_i), dX(\partial_j) \rangle = g^{ij}g_{ij} = n$$

Then we get that

$$\frac{1}{2}\Delta|X|^2 = \operatorname{div}\langle dX, X \rangle = n + \langle \mathbf{H}, X \rangle$$

Now with the natural definition of the area with Riemannian measure $\operatorname{Area}(M) = \int_M d\mu$ we get that

$$\begin{aligned}\operatorname{Area}(M) &= \frac{1}{n} \int_M n \, d\mu \\ &= \frac{1}{n} \int_M \left[\frac{1}{2}\Delta|X|^2 - \langle X, \mathbf{H} \rangle \right] d\mu\end{aligned}$$

By the divergence theorem we have

$$\int_M \frac{1}{2}\Delta|X|^2 \, d\mu = \int_M \operatorname{div}\langle dX, X \rangle \, d\mu \leq \int_{\partial M} \langle dX, \mathbf{N} \rangle \, d\sigma = 0$$

Then we get (2.15). ■

2.2.2 First variation of Area and Volume

Example 2.2. For a surface $M \subseteq \mathbb{R}^3$ parameterized by $X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ the first variation of its area functional A_M should be that

$$\delta A[X, t] = - \int_M H \cdot \phi \, dA \quad (2.16)$$

where $X_t = X + t\phi \cdot \mathbf{N}$, $dA = \sqrt{g} \, d\sigma$, $d\sigma = du \wedge dv$ and $g = \det(g_{ij})$.

Let $g_{ij} = \langle \partial_i X, \partial_j X \rangle$, then we have

$$\begin{aligned} g_{ij}^t &= \left\langle \frac{\partial X_t}{\partial u_i}, \frac{\partial X_t}{\partial u_j} \right\rangle \\ &= \left\langle \frac{\partial X}{\partial u_i} + t \cdot \left(\phi \frac{\partial \mathbf{N}}{\partial u_i} + \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial u_i} \mathbf{N} \right), \frac{\partial X}{\partial u_j} + t \cdot \left(\phi \frac{\partial \mathbf{N}}{\partial u_j} + \frac{\partial \phi}{\partial u_j} \mathbf{N} \right) \right\rangle \\ &= g_{ij} + t\phi \cdot \left(\left\langle \frac{\partial X}{\partial u_i}, \frac{\partial \mathbf{N}}{\partial u_j} \right\rangle + \left\langle \frac{\partial \mathbf{N}}{\partial u_i}, \frac{\partial X}{\partial u_j} \right\rangle \right) + o(t) \\ &= g_{ij} - 2(t\phi)h_{ij} + o(t) \end{aligned}$$

Thus we could compute $\left(dg_{ij}^t / dt \right)_{t=0}$ as

$$\left. \frac{dg_{ij}^t}{dt} \right|_{t=0} = \lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{g_{ij}^t - g_{ij}}{t} = -2\phi \cdot h_{ij}$$

Then the derivative of $g_t = \det(g_{ij}^t)$ is

$$\begin{aligned} \left. \frac{dg_t}{dt} \right|_{t=0} &= \frac{\partial g_t}{\partial g_{ij}^t} \cdot \left. \frac{dg_{ij}^t}{dt} \right|_{t=0} \\ &= \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial g_{ij}} \sum_k g_{ik} G_{ik} \right) \cdot (-2\phi \cdot h_{ij}) \\ &= G_{ij} \cdot (-2\phi \cdot h_{ij}) = (g_{ij})_{ji}^* \cdot (-2\phi \cdot h_{ij}) = g \cdot g^{ij} (-2\phi \cdot h_{ij}) = -2g (H \cdot \phi) \end{aligned}$$

Finally, by the definition of the first variation we have

$$\delta A[X, t] = \left. \frac{d}{dt} A_{X_t} \right|_{t=0} = \int_\Omega \left. \frac{d}{dt} \sqrt{g_t} \right|_{t=0} d\sigma = - \int_\Omega H \cdot \phi \sqrt{g} d\sigma$$

and that is (2.16).

3. Mean Curvature Flow

The mean curvature flow is (after choosing an appropriate ‘gauge’) a parabolic equation, with the minimal surface equation as its static case and elliptic counterpart. Its linear analogue is the heat equation, with its elliptic counterpart being the Laplace equation.

Definition 3.1 (Mean Curvature Flow). *A smooth 1-parameter family of immersions $X : M^n \times I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ satisfies the mean curvature flow if*

$$\partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t) = \mathbf{H}(\mathbf{x}, t), \quad \forall (\mathbf{x}, t) \in M^n \times [0, T] \quad (3.1)$$

where $\mathbf{H}$ denotes the mean curvature vector of the family.

We say that $X : M \times I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is a solution of **reparametrized mean curvature flow** if

$$[\partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t)]^\perp = \mathbf{H}(\mathbf{x}, t)$$

In this case, the vector field

$$V(\mathbf{x}, t) := [\partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t)]^\perp - \partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t)$$

is tangential. Defining the 1-parameter family of self-diffeomorphisms $\varphi_t : M \rightarrow M$ by

$$\begin{cases} \partial_t \varphi_t(\mathbf{x}) = dX_t^{-1}[V(\varphi_t(\mathbf{x}), t)], \\ \varphi_0 = \text{id}_M \end{cases} \quad (3.2)$$

and let $\hat{X}_t = X_t \circ \varphi_t$. Then we claim that $\hat{X}$ is a solution of the mean curvature flow (3.1). This is because

$$\partial_t \hat{X}(\mathbf{x}, t) = \left[\frac{\partial}{\partial \mathbf{x}} X_t, \frac{\partial}{\partial t} X_t \right] \cdot \begin{bmatrix} \partial_t \varphi_t(\mathbf{x}) \\ \partial_t t \end{bmatrix} = dX_t(\varphi_t) \cdot \partial_t \varphi_t(\mathbf{x}) + \partial_t X_t(\varphi_t)$$

Combined with (3.2) and the relationship between differentiation and the action of tangent vectors, we can obtain that

$$\begin{aligned} dX_t(\varphi_t) \cdot \partial_t \varphi_t(\mathbf{x}) &= dX_t[dX_t^{-1}[V(\varphi_t, t)]] \\ &= V(\varphi_t, t) = [\partial_t X(\varphi_t, t)]^\perp - \partial_t X(\varphi_t, t) \end{aligned}$$

Hence, by the condition of the reparametrized mean curvature flow we have that

$$\partial_t \hat{X}(\mathbf{x}, t) = [\partial_t X(\varphi_t, t)]^\perp = \mathbf{H}(\varphi_t, t) = \mathbf{H}_{\hat{X}}(\mathbf{x}, t)$$

A much easier solution of the MCF (Mean Curvature Flow) is the following shrinking round sphere. Denote by $S_r^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ the n -sphere of radius $r > 0$ centered at the origin. Set $\mathcal{M}_0 = S_{r_0}^n$ where $r_0 > 0$. We seek a solution of a family of n -sphere to mean curvature flow, starting at $\mathcal{M}_0$. Then let $\mathcal{M}_t = S_{r(t)}^n$, it can naturally parameterized by an embedding $X_t : S_1^n \hookrightarrow$ as

$$X_t : \mathbf{x} \mapsto r(t) \cdot \mathbf{x}$$

Then by Example 2.1 we could calculate its mean curvature and $\partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t)$ as

$$\mathbf{H} = -H(\mathbf{x}, t) \cdot \mathbf{N}(\mathbf{x}, t) = -n \frac{\mathbf{x}}{r(t)}, \quad \partial_t X(\mathbf{x}, t) = \frac{dr(t)}{dt} \mathbf{x}$$

Then the MCF (3.1) relates to an ODE

$$\frac{dr(t)}{dt} = -\frac{n}{r(t)}$$

One can solve this equation with initial value $r(0) = r_0$ as

$$r(t) = \sqrt{r_0^2 - 2nt}$$

Then we have

$$X_t(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{x} \cdot \sqrt{r_0^2 - 2nt}$$

Which means that the sphere in such family would shrink to a point for $t \in (-\infty, r_0^2/2n)$

Recall that a minimal hypersurface $\mathcal{M}^n \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ is a hypersurface satisfying $H \equiv 0$. Given a minimal surface $\mathcal{M}_0^n$ its clear that $\mathcal{M}_t \equiv \mathcal{M}_0$ is a solution of the mean curvature flow. In the following section we will discuss it specifically.

We claim that if $\mathcal{M}_t^{n-m}$ is a solution to mean curvature flow in $\mathbb{R}^{n-m+1}$, then the family of product hypersurfaces

$$\mathcal{M}_t^n := \mathcal{M}_t^{n-m} \times \mathbb{R}^m \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$$

should be a solution to mean curvature flow in $\mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ which is called the cylinder over a solution. To see this let the immersion over $\mathcal{M}_t^{n-m}$ be $X'(\mathbf{x}, t)$ which satisfies that

$$\partial_t X'(\mathbf{x}, t) = \mathbf{H}_{n-m}$$

Then let the immersion $X : \mathcal{M}_t^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ be defined as $X(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}, t) = (X'(\mathbf{x}, t), \mathbf{y})$. Let $\partial/\partial x_i, i = 1, 2, \dots, n-m$ denote the linearly independent tangent vectors of $\mathcal{M}_t^{n-m}$ and $\partial/\partial y_j, j = 1, 2, \dots, m$ denote the tangent vector in $\mathbb{R}^m$. Thus we have

$$g_{ij}^X = \begin{bmatrix} g_{i_1 j_1}^{X'}(\mathbf{x}, t) & 0 \\ 0 & \delta_{i_2 j_2} \end{bmatrix}$$

where $\delta_{i_2 j_2} = 1$ if and only if $i_2 = j_2$ and $g_{i_1 j_1}^{X'}(\mathbf{x}, t)$ is the first fundamental form of $\mathcal{M}_t^{n-m}$ over X' . With this its easy to verify that the second fundamental form of $\mathcal{M}_t^n$ should be

$$\mathbf{II} = h_{ij}^X = \begin{bmatrix} h_{i_1 j_1}^{X'}(\mathbf{x}, t) & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

Hence we can get that

$$\mathbf{H}_n = -g_X^{ij} \cdot h_{ij}^X = (\mathbf{H}_{n-m}, 0)$$

Therefore, we deduce that

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} X(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}, t) = (\partial_t X'(\mathbf{x}, t), 0) = (\mathbf{H}_{n-m}, 0) = \mathbf{H}_n$$

3.1 Minimal Surface Problem

Now, let us briefly review the origins of the concept of mean curvature flow. First and foremost, let's consider a natural problem as follows, which is called **Minimal Surface Problem**. In $\mathbb{R}^3$, it can be expressed as:

Problem 3.1 (Plateau). Given a closed curve $\Gamma \in \mathbb{R}^3$, find a surface M with boundary Γ such that its area is minimal among all surfaces bounded by Γ .

To find such surface M let it be parameterized by $X : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ where the parameters $(u, v) \subseteq \Omega$ and $X|_{\partial\Omega} = \Gamma$ then its area can be written as

$$A_M = \int_{\Omega} |X_u \times X_v| \, du \, dv = \int_{\Omega} \sqrt{EG - F^2} \, d\sigma$$

where $d\sigma = du \wedge dv$ and $E = \langle X_u, X_u \rangle$, $F = \langle X_u, X_v \rangle$, $G = \langle X_v, X_v \rangle$. Then consider a deformation $X_t = X(u, v, t) = X + t\phi \cdot \mathbf{N}$ where ϕ is a compact support function $\phi : \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ such that $\phi|_{\partial\Omega} = 0$ and $\mathbf{N}$ is the unit normal vector field of M . Then we know the first order variation of it should be

$$\delta(A_{X_t}) = \left. \frac{d}{dt} A_{X_t} \right|_{t=0} = - \int_{\Omega} H \cdot \phi \sqrt{g} \, d\sigma = - \int_M H \cdot \phi \, dA$$

Under the inner product $\langle f, g \rangle = \int_M f \cdot g \, dA$ in $L^2(M)$ we know that

$$\langle -H, \phi \rangle = \delta(A_{X_t}) = \langle \nabla A, \phi \rangle$$

Which shows $\nabla A = -H$. Thus the mean curvature flow of any $X : \Omega \times I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$

$$\begin{cases} \partial_t X(u, v, t) = \mathbf{H} = H \cdot \mathbf{N} = -\nabla A \\ X|_{\partial\Omega}(u, v, t) = \Gamma, \end{cases} \quad \forall (u, v) \in \Omega, t \in I$$

represent a family of surfaces bounded by Γ such that their area decreased. Since M is the minimal surface, then by Fermat lemma its area variation should always be zero, that is

$$\delta(A_{X_t}) = \langle \nabla A, \phi \rangle \equiv 0, \quad \forall \phi$$

It implies that $\nabla A = -H \cdot \mathbf{N} \equiv 0$, then $H \equiv 0$. Thus, each minimal surface should necessarily be a stable point of a mean curvature flow. Particularly, in $\mathbb{R}^3$ we have that

$$H = \text{tr}(L) = \text{tr}(g^{ij} \cdot h_{ij}) = \frac{EN - 2FM + GL}{EG - F^2}$$

where $L = \langle X_{uu}, \mathbf{N} \rangle$, $M = \langle X_{uv}, \mathbf{N} \rangle$, $N = \langle X_{vv}, \mathbf{N} \rangle$. Then by $H = 0$ we can deduce the equation of a minimal surface $z = f(x, y)$ with the boundary $\Gamma : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^3$ should be

$$\begin{cases} \left[1 + (f'_y)^2\right] f''_x - 2f'_x f'_y f''_{xy} + \left[1 + (f'_x)^2\right] f''_{yy} = 0 \\ \Gamma_z(t) = f[\Gamma_x(t), \Gamma_y(t)] \end{cases} \quad (3.3)$$

Example 3.1. The plane and the following two surfaces are the classical solution of the Plateau's problem.

- (i) For any closed simple curve Γ on the following Catenoid, the Catenoid itself should be a minimal surface of such Plateau's problem with boundary Γ .

$$X(u, v) = (u, \cosh u \cos v, \cosh u \sin v) \quad (3.4)$$

- (ii) For any closed simple curve Γ on the following Helicoid, it is a minimal surface of such Plateau's problem with boundary Γ .

$$X(u, v) = (v \cos u, v \sin u, u) \quad (3.5)$$

One can verify this example by simply checking the mean curvature H of the surface (3.4) and (3.5) are both zero.

Furthermore, based on the concept of hypersurface area established in the previous section, we can generalize Plateau's problem to arbitrary n -dimensional hypersurfaces and demonstrate that a necessary condition for the solutions to these problems is that they constitute a stationary point of the mean curvature flow (we shall prove this by verifying that the mean curvature flow is the gradient flow of the area functional).

Problem 3.2 (Minimal Surface). For a smooth, compact and closed $(n - 1)$ -dimensional submanifold $\Gamma \subseteq \mathbb{R}^{n+1}$ find an n -dimensional hypersurface M which could be bounded by Γ and has the minimal area among all the hypersurface with the same boundary.

3.2 Isoperimetric Problem

Problem 3.3 (Isoperimetric Problem). Given an area $A > 0$ in the plane $\mathbb{R}^2$, does there exist a closed curve with the shortest possible parameter such that the area enclosed within it is exactly A ?

We claim that such closed curve does exist, because the area enclosed by a closed curve of zero length is evidently also zero, it follows that the length of any closed curve enclosing an area $A > 0$ must necessarily be greater than zero. Furthermore, as it can be proven that the set comprising all closed curves with an enclosed area of A is complete, the Extreme Value Theorem implies that the lengths of all curves within this set must possess a greatest lower bound.

To find such curve we define the functional of the length of any closed curve $\gamma : I \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ as

$$L_\gamma = \int_I |\dot{\gamma}| \, dt$$

3.3 Self-similar Solutions

4. Valuable Research Directions

4.1 Generalizing Isoperimetric Inequality

Based on the fact that mean curvature flow constitutes the gradient flow associated with surface area, it is not difficult to deduce that its lower-dimensional counterpart—curve shortening flow—serves as the gradient flow associated with curve length. Drawing an analogy to how mean curvature flow can be utilized to address the minimal surface problem, we are naturally led to wonder: could methods derived from curve shortening flow potentially offer a novel proof of the isoperimetric inequality? The answer is affirmative; in fact, the mathematician Grayson reached a similar conclusion as early as 1983 [1]. Our task, therefore, is to clearly distill this proof from his paper and the findings derived from other relevant literature. Specifically, the following references would be helpful [2–5].

Another thing is that we might be able to apply the method of mean curvature flow to generalize the isoperimetric inequality to higher-dimensional manifolds. For example here is a conjecture

Conjecture 4.1

Let M^n be a compact, boundaryless hypersurface embedded in n -dimensional Euclidean space, enclosing a bounded region Ω . Denoting the $(n+1)$ -dimensional volume of this region as $V(\Omega)$ and the n -dimensional surface area of M as $A(M)$. Then for some given positive real number A_0 there should be a hypersurface that maximizes $V(\Omega)$ under a fixed surface area $A(M) = A_0$. Furthermore, for any dimension n there should be a constant c_n that solely depends on n and also makes the following inequality holds.

$$\frac{A^{n+1}(M)}{V^n(\Omega)} \geq c_n \quad (4.1)$$

4.2 Review the Proof of the Multiplicity-One Conjecture and Try to Prove The Smale Conjecture

References

- [1] M. E. Gage, “An isoperimetric inequality with applications to curve shortening,” *Journal of Duke Math*, 1983.
- [2] M. A. Grayson, “Shortening embedded curves,” *Annals of Mathematics*, vol. 129, no. 1, pp. 71–111, 1989.
- [3] M. E. Gage, “Curve shortening makes convex curves circular,” *Inventiones mathematicae*, vol. 76, no. 2, pp. 357–364, 1984.
- [4] M. Gage and R. S. Hamilton, “The heat equation shrinking convex plane curves,” *Journal of Differential Geometry*, vol. 23, no. 1, pp. 69–96, 1986.
- [5] M. A. Grayson, “The heat equation shrinks embedded plane curves to round points,” *Journal of Differential geometry*, vol. 26, no. 2, pp. 285–314, 1987.

A. Appendix of code and algorithm

A.1 code blocks

```

1  import torch
2  import torch.nn as nn
3  import torch.optim as optim
4  import numpy as np
5  import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
6  from mpl_toolkits.mplot3d import Axes3D
7  from scipy.integrate import odeint
8
9  """test"""
10 a=torch.tensor([[6,2,3],[3,4,5],[2,7,4],[5,2,0]])
11 b=torch.tensor([1,2,3,4])
12 b=b.unsqueeze(1)      # the text message
13 c=b*a
14 d=torch.tensor([1.0, 1.2, 1.5])
15 f=d+a
16 e1=f[:,1].unsqueeze(1)
17 Ar = np.array([[1,2,3],[4,5,6],[7,8,9]])
18 ar = torch.from_numpy(Ar)
19 print(Ar)
20 print(ar)

```

A.2 Algorithm

Algorithm 1: Simulation-optimization heuristic

Data: current period t , initial inventory I_{t-1} , initial capital B_{t-1} , demand samples

Result: Optimal order quantity Q_t^*

```

1   $r \leftarrow t$ ;
2   $\Delta B^* \leftarrow -\infty$ ;
3  while  $\Delta B \leq \Delta B^*$  and  $r \leq T$  do
4       $Q \leftarrow \arg \max_{Q \geq 0} \Delta B_{t,r}^Q(I_{t-1}, B_{t-1})$ ;
5       $\Delta B \leftarrow \Delta B_{t,r}^Q(I_{t-1}, B_{t-1}) / (r - t + 1)$ ;
6      if  $\Delta B \geq \Delta B^*$  then
7           $Q^* \leftarrow Q$ ;
8           $\Delta B^* \leftarrow \Delta B$ ;
9      end if
10      $r \leftarrow r + 1$ ;
11 end while

```
